Does a tyre-degradation model transfer?

Cross-championship evidence and a retrospective audit of 1,280 real pit-stop decisions

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Abstract

Race-strategy models are usually fitted and validated inside one championship. Two questions follow: does a fitted model predict a season it has never seen, and does its recommendation resemble what a team actually did? We apply one protocol to both across 7 car classes and four championships — Formula 1, WEC, IMSA and ELMS — common rather than identical, since endurance sources carry no tyre compound and those models are net-slope.

Four findings. Degradation slopes transfer as a property of the *circuit-class*, not the championship, and rarely: of 51 measured by leave-one-race-out, 5 reach a within-stint R^2 of 0.2. That count overstates instability. With a slope stable by construction, 18 of 22 Formula 1 circuits cannot clear the threshold against their own lap noise; pricing it in leaves 8 unstable and 3 stable. Whether an extra stop pays is set by its cost: over 205 race-seasons, pit loss alone separates the regimes at an AUC of 0.977 against 0.865 for degradation. Replaying 1,280 real first stops, a single-next-stop planner stops a median of +10 laps later than Formula 1 teams. Four explanations fail; the fifth is the audit, which ran the planner's second stint to the flag. Holding each team's next stop fixed, the gap falls to +2 and no endurance gap survives; +4 remains in one-stop races. And the rival such a model should answer is under-determined: 4 defensible rules agree on 17 of 271 decisions.

Keywords: race strategy; tyre degradation; out-of-sample validation; motorsport analytics; Formula 1; endurance racing; pit stop optimisation; retrospective audit

1 Introduction

A pit stop is a decision under uncertainty with a measurable cost. The literature on optimising it is small but real, and this paper's contribution is not another optimiser. It is a pair of validation questions that the existing work, for understandable reasons, does not ask.

The first is *transfer*. A degradation model is fitted on races that have happened and used on a race that has not. Whether a slope fitted on past seasons of a circuit predicts the next season of that circuit is an empirical question, and answering it requires holding a season out — which in turn requires more than one season, and ideally more than one championship.

The second is *agreement with practice*. A model that recommends a stop lap can be compared to the lap a team actually chose. This is not a claim about which was faster; it is a measurement of where a model and a professional pit wall part company, and by how much.

Both questions need breadth to answer, and breadth is what this work supplies: one protocol, four championships, 7 car classes, every quantity measured from published timing or absent.

The protocol is the object of this paper and the findings are what it returned. Two of them came back negative, which is a property of the answers rather than of the apparatus. The cost falls in the other direction: our modelling is simpler than much of the work we cite, we ignore energy management entirely, and nothing here makes an existing optimiser better.

2 Related work

Race-strategy research is largely about building the optimiser. The methods vary widely — discrete-event simulation, Monte Carlo, dynamic programming, mixed-integer programming, reinforcement learning, game theory — and the goal is consistent: compute a better plan than a team would otherwise choose.

Bekker and Lotz [2009] give the earliest sustained operations-research treatment, simulating a full race with overtaking and traffic under the refuelling rules of the time. Heilmeier et al. [2018] introduce the lap-time decomposition that much of the later work rests on, combining fuel mass, tyre degradation and driver effects, and Heilmeier et al. [2020a] extend it to a probabilistic simulation sampling accidents, safety cars and lap-time variability. Heilmeier et al. [2020b] then train neural networks on that simulation's output to make calls in real time. Carrasco Heine and Thraves [2022] give an exact dynamic program over stop laps and compound choice, extended to a stochastic version, and Aguad and Thraves [2024] formulate the problem as a zero-sum feedback Stackelberg game between two drivers, finding that a strategic competitor gains over 15% in winning odds. Outside Formula 1 the same machinery has been built for endurance racing, and almost entirely for electric cars, where the binding constraint is charge rather than fuel. van Kampen et al. [2022] solve endurance stint planning and powertrain operation jointly under thermal limits; van Kampen et al. [2024] extend that to model predictive control that prices a competitor's likely response; and de Vries et al. [2026] pose the whole problem as a two-agent game, solving a game-theoretic optimal control problem per lap and training reinforcement learning agents to allocate energy and schedule stops over a race. Boettinger and Klotz [2023] is the rare treatment of GT racing rather than single-seaters, simulating the Nordschleife and learning a stop policy from fuel mass and race position. Recent Formula 1 work adds learning: Thomas et al. [2025] apply explainable reinforcement learning to compound and stop timing,

Fieni et al. [2025] combine a mixed-integer program with an RL agent over energy, tyre wear and pit timing, Fieni et al. [2026] extend that to self-play among competing agents, and Todd et al. [2025] forecast tyre energy from team-internal telemetry. Santillana [2026] deploys a calibrated real-time Monte Carlo engine live, generating natural-language briefings faithful to its own probabilistic state.

Two things are rare across all of it.

The first is out-of-sample validation of the fitted parameters. A tyre model is fitted and its quality reported on the data it was fitted to. Cappello and Hoegh [2026] come closest, building a Bayesian state-space model of degradation from the same public timing source used here, with lap time as fuel mass plus a latent tyre state and pit stops as resets. They also validate out of sample, and are the only work here that does: Cappello and Hoegh [2026] evaluate predictive robustness on 19 race sessions of the 2025 season, by rolling-origin cross-validation against an AR(1) benchmark. What separates that from this paper is the axis along which the held-out data varies. Their held-out sessions are one season, one driver and one championship, held out forward in time; the protocol here holds out a whole season of a circuit-class and asks whether the remaining seasons predict it, over 51 circuit-classes and four championships. Both are out-of-sample. Only one changes season, circuit and class at once. They also report compound-specific degradation differences as not statistically distinct. That is consistent with the instability we measure at scale.

The second is comparison against what teams actually did. Optimisers get compared to other optimisers, to author-constructed baselines, or to the optimum under the model's own assumptions. Bekker and Lotz [2009] compare to real races, and Aguad and Thraves [2024] compare strategic against non-strategic agents inside their own game, but we are not aware of work that replays a large sample of real pit-stop decisions and reports where the optimiser and the pit wall diverge.

A third gap is narrower and sits between the two. A model's assumptions can be tested against measured parameter values without testing the model itself. Salminen [2026] solves the two-car one-stop game analytically and derives the earliest lap on which an undercut cannot be answered, which is the only mechanism we have found that predicts stopping *before* the time optimum — the direction of our third result. His overcut defence requires a tyre advantage of $(o + \varepsilon)/\theta$ laps. At the degradation rates fitted here it is unreachable on a substantial share of circuit-compounds, which we report in the repository because it tests a model that is not ours.

His position-keeping defence is a different matter: it is the third candidate explanation for our own Result 3, so we implement it, test it on the same 357 Formula 1 decisions, and report in Section 7.2 that it fails.

The modelling here is not more sophisticated than Heilmeier et al. [2020a] or Aguad and Thraves [2024]; in places it is deliberately simpler, and it ignores energy management entirely. What is different is the protocol: of the 17 papers catalogued for this review, Cappello and Hoegh [2026] is the only one that validates its fitted parameters on data it did not fit, and none applies a single protocol to more than one championship. We claim no priority. The literature is large and a catalogue is not a census; the claim is only that these 17 papers, each checked against a publication record, do not contain the comparison this paper reports. Two of the three findings that come back from it are negative.

3 Data and protocol

3.1 Sources and scope

Formula 1 lap timing, tyre compound and per-lap track status come from the FastF1 API. WEC, IMSA and ELMS timing comes from a community-maintained endurance dataset carrying lap times, stint structure and flag state but *not* tyre compound. The endurance degradation models are therefore net-slope models where the Formula 1 one is per compound, and that asymmetry is restated wherever the two are compared. Table 1 gives the scope.

Table 1: Scope. A race-season is one class at one circuit in one season, which is the unit everything here is fitted and reported on.

	Classes	Circuits	Race-seasons	Replayed decisions	Seasons
Formula 1	1	25	104	357	2022–2026
IMSA	3	13	136	632	2021–2026
ELMS	2	9	42	171	2021–2025
WEC	1	11	27	120	2022–2026

Nothing is imputed. Where a source lacks a quantity the affected layer is not fitted, and the gap goes on the record as a gap.

Which laps are modelled. Every fit here runs on a filtered frame rather than on raw timing, and the filters matter enough to state. A lap enters only if it is a green-flag racing lap: in-laps and out-laps are dropped, as are laps under any neutralisation, laps the source marks inaccurate

or deleted, and laps whose time is missing. Wet-compound laps are excluded entirely, so every degradation coefficient is a dry-weather quantity. What survives is then trimmed against traffic, by dropping laps slower than a fixed multiple of that driver–race's own median — a relative threshold rather than an absolute one, because the same gap in seconds means different things at Monaco and at Spa — and a stint is modelled only if enough laps survive the trim to fit a shape to. The per-circuit counts at every stage are generated into the degradation reports, so the cost of each filter is visible rather than asserted. What this frame does *not* remove is lap-level variation the filters cannot see: a driver lifting to manage a tyre, an engine mode, a blue flag that cost less than the trim threshold. The driver–race intercept absorbs a constant, not those.

3.2 Degradation

For driver–race i and lap ℓ within stint s, with tyre age a and compound c,

$$y_{i\ell} \;=\; \alpha_i \;+\; \phi\,\ell \;+\; \sum_{k=1}^{d} \beta_{c,k}\, a_{i\ell}^{k} \;+\; \varepsilon_{i\ell}, \tag{1}$$

where y is lap time, α_i is a driver–race fixed effect absorbing car pace, driver pace and track conditions, and $\phi\ell$ is a fuel-burn proxy that is identified only where refuelling is prohibited. In endurance, where cars refuel, ℓ is replaced by laps since the last refuelling stop and the compound index drops out, leaving a single net slope β_1.

Equation 1 is estimated by ordinary least squares through a Moore–Penrose pseudoinverse, which handles the rank-deficient cases — a driver–race seen on one compound only. The polynomial degree $d \in \{1, 2\}$ is chosen per circuit by leave-one-race-out cross-validation.

Standard errors are cluster-robust (CR1) on the driver–race and referred to $t(G-1)$ rather than the normal [Cameron and Miller, 2015]. The clustering is not decorative: lap-to-lap errors within one driver's race are strongly dependent, and a coverage simulation on synthetic races with realistic between-unit slope variation puts the classical 95% interval at roughly 75% coverage against 95% for the robust one.

Two features of Figure 1 constrain everything after it. 16 of the 73 fitted slopes, 22%, have a cluster-robust interval containing zero: on those circuit–compound pairs we cannot distinguish tyre degradation from none. And within a circuit, 75% of compound pairs have overlapping intervals, so the compound distinction the Formula 1 model carries is largely unresolved by

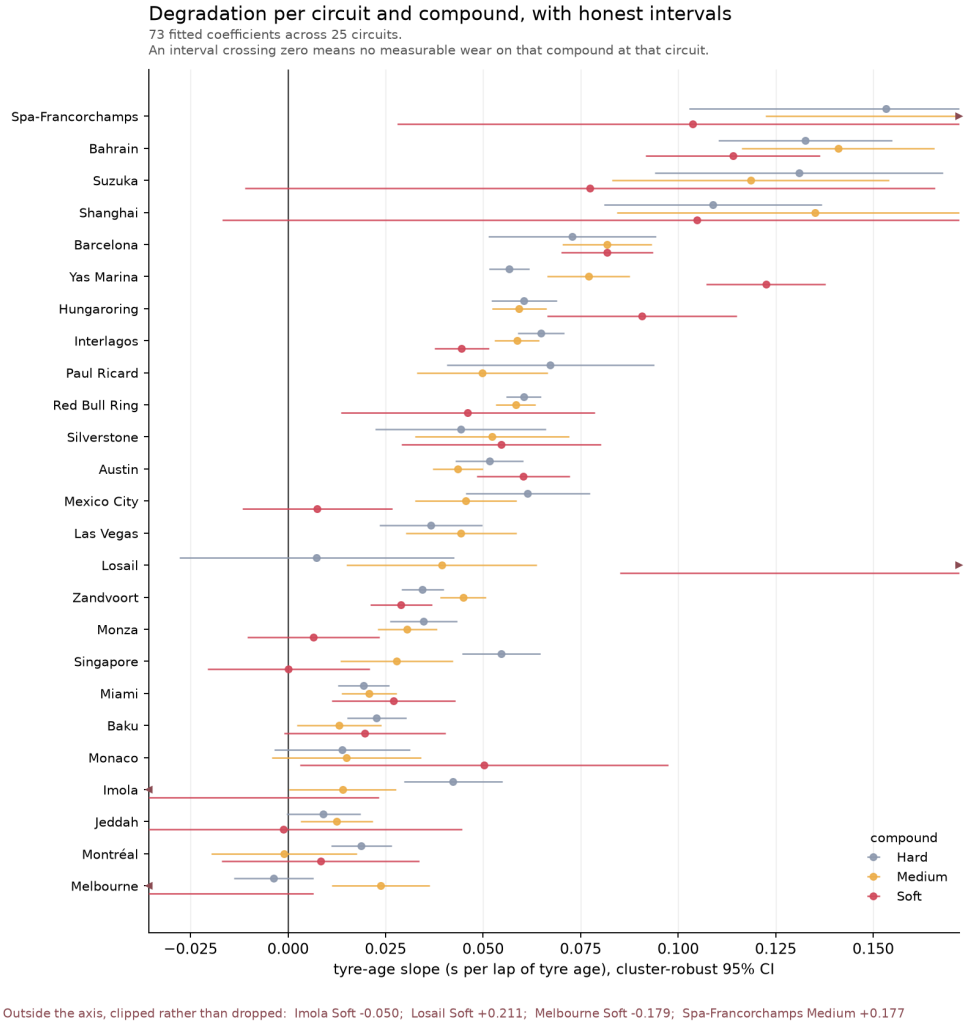


Figure 1: The fitted object itself: linear tyre-degradation coefficients for Formula 1, by circuit and compound, with cluster-robust intervals. 73 coefficients across 25 circuits. Points outside the plotted range are clipped and then named under the axis, because a handful of extremes otherwise compresses every other circuit into a tenth of the width. Dropping them silently would be the same defect as any other silent narrowing here.

the data behind it. Both are reported, and neither is screened out. A slope that cannot be distinguished from flat is still the measurement we have, and dropping the ones that disappoint is how a transfer result gets manufactured. Section 9 returns to what this costs.

3.3 Transfer

Fit on every season of a circuit-class but one, predict the held-out season, and score the within-stint demeaned residual:

$$R^2_{\text{within}} \;=\; 1 - \frac{\sum_s \sum_{\ell \in s} \big(\tilde{y}_\ell - \tilde{\hat{y}}_\ell\big)^2}{\sum_s \sum_{\ell \in s} \tilde{y}_\ell^{\,2}}, \qquad \tilde{x}_\ell = x_\ell - \overline{x}_s. \tag{2}$$

The demeaning in Equation 2 is what makes this a test of the *shape* of degradation rather than of pace. A driver–race intercept fitted on training data cannot be observed on a held-out race, so comparing raw lap times would leak information through α_i.

3.4 The multi-stop dynamic program

For an endurance race of L laps with green pace p, net slope β, pit loss π and fuel range F, a plan is a partition of L into stints $(n_1, \ldots, n_{m+1})$ with m stops. Total time under the fitted model is

$$T(n_1, \ldots, n_{m+1}) \;=\; m\pi \;+\; \sum_j \left(n_j p + \beta\, \frac{n_j(n_j+1)}{2} \right), \tag{3}$$

subject to $n_j \le F$ for every stint. The triangular sum is the accumulated tyre loss over a stint of n_j laps. We use it exactly, not as the $\beta n_j^2/2$ integral; they differ by $\beta n_j/2$, which is about a second over a forty-lap stint and is the only quantity the stop decision compares against π.

Because T in Equation 3 is separable across stints given m, the minimum over plans is a one-dimensional dynamic program in remaining laps, solved exactly for each m from the fuel minimum $\lceil L/F \rceil - 1$ upward. A race is called *tyre-limited* when the time-optimal m exceeds that fuel minimum.

3.5 The Monte Carlo engine and the decision audit

The single-next-stop engine evaluates every candidate pit lap over 5,000 shared realisations. Each draw resamples the degradation and fuel coefficients from their cluster-robust posteriors ($t(G-1)$ scaled by the estimated standard errors), the neutralisation hazard from its Gamma posterior, and lap noise at the cross-validated residual scale. Candidates share the same draws,

so a comparison between two pit laps carries no unrelated sampling noise. Plans leaving fewer than 3 laps after the stop are excluded. After the stop the engine runs to the end of the race; it plans one stop, not the stops after it, and Section 7.4 measures what that costs the audit.

The audit replays real decisions; it does not forecast them. For every race with a fitted model, the top 5 classified finishers in Formula 1 (5 cars in endurance) who made at least one stop are replayed at their *first* stop. The model is asked 5 laps before that stop in Formula 1 and 3 in endurance, given the state as it was, and its recommended lap is compared to the team's. Stops earlier than lap 8 (6 in endurance) are excluded as incidents rather than strategy. Rivals keep their real, historically observed plans: the decision under study is one car's, the rest of the world is as it happened.

This is what makes the comparison possible and also what stops it being a prediction claim. The decision point is defined relative to a stop that already happened.

3.6 The three baselines

Scored on the same decisions, from the same artifacts, on absolute lap error against the team's stop.

B1, fixed interval. Divide the race into equal stints: $\ell^\star = \text{round}(kL/(m+1))$ for the kth of m stops. Uses no fitted quantity at all.

B2, threshold. Stop on the first lap at which the stint's accumulated tyre loss exceeds the pit loss,

$$\beta \frac{a(a+1)}{2} > \pi, \qquad \text{firing at} \qquad a^\star = \frac{-1+\sqrt{1+8\pi/\beta}}{2}. \tag{4}$$

Equation 4 uses the fitted slope and the measured pit loss, and nothing else — no fuel term, no neutralisation hazard, no distribution over outcomes. The gap between B2 and the full engine is precisely what the Monte Carlo buys.

B3, fuel deadline. Run the tank out. Undefined in Formula 1, where refuelling has been prohibited since 2010, and reported as undefined rather than substituted with the race end.

Where a rule cannot fire — B2 on a tyre that never accumulates enough loss before the flag — no lap is returned and that decision is not scored for that rule. Coverage is reported alongside every error, because a rule answering a fifth of the decisions and landing close on those has not beaten one that answers all of them.

4 Result 1: transfer is a property of the circuit-class

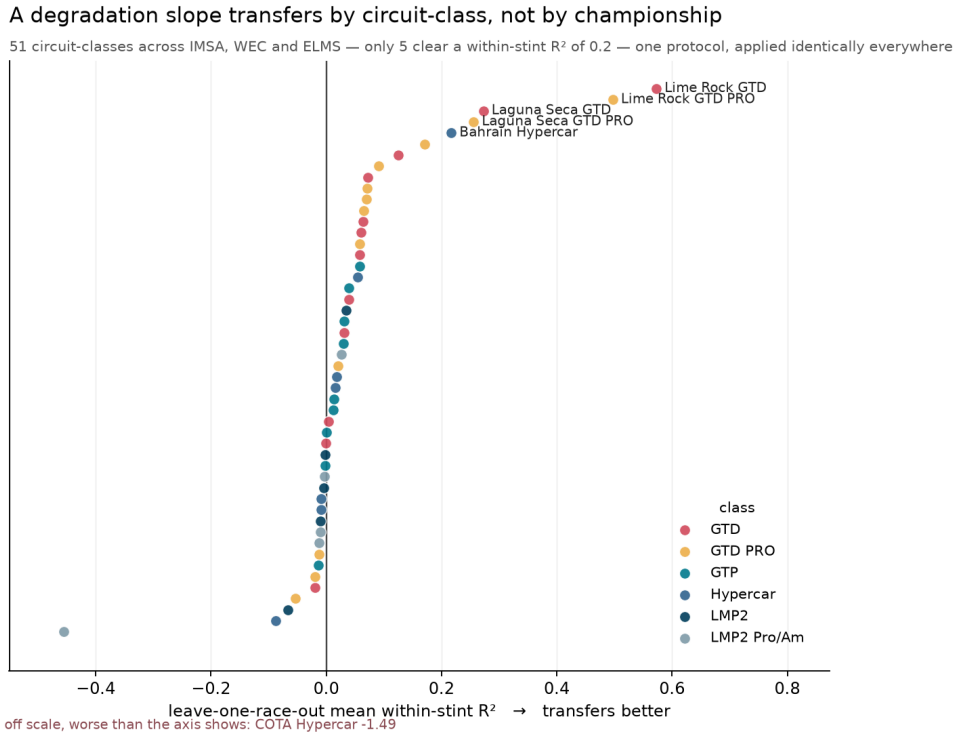


Figure 2: Leave-one-race-out mean within-stint R^2, one point per circuit-class. Of 51 measured, 5 clear 0.2.

Figure 2 shows the distribution. The maximum is +0.573 at Lime Rock GTD; almost everywhere else a slope fitted on past seasons predicts the next one no better than that season's own mean.

Grouping by car type, GT3 classes average +0.104 (95% CI [+0.050, +0.170]) against -0.060 ([-0.199, +0.021]) for prototypes. The difference is +0.164 with a 95% cluster bootstrap interval of [+0.059, +0.312], and a permutation test on the group labels gives $p = 0.0011$. Both are reported because they fail differently: the bootstrap assumes the clusters resemble their population, the permutation assumes only exchangeability under the null. Resampling is at the circuit-class, never the fold: folds inside a circuit-class share a pooled fitted slope, and treating them as independent would roughly quadruple the apparent sample.

The obvious explanation for instability is heterogeneous, performance-balanced machinery. We can rule it out. ELMS LMP2 is a near-specification class — one chassis, one engine, no Balance of Performance — and its slopes fail to transfer exactly as the balanced GT3 fields do. The instability is not the hardware. Where transfer does occur it tracks short circuits with cheap stops, which is the same axis Result 2 turns on.

4.1 What a stable slope could have scored

A low score has two explanations that are indistinguishable from outside the measurement. The slope moved between seasons, or there was never enough signal in the laps for any slope to be recovered. Counting how few circuit-classes clear a threshold cannot separate those, and the separation is the result.

So we measured the second one directly, on Formula 1, where the per-compound fit and the lap data are richest. Lap times are rebuilt from each circuit's own fit — its driver–race intercepts, its fuel slope, and *one* degradation slope used for every season, so the slope is stable by construction — plus residuals resampled in whole stints, which keeps their within-stint correlation rather than handing the model independent draws it would find easier to predict. Running the real protocol on that gives the within-stint R^2 a perfectly stable slope earns against the noise actually present.

The ceiling is far lower than the threshold, and it varies by an order of magnitude between circuits: from +0.005 at Silverstone to +0.420 at Jeddah. At 18 of 22 circuits a perfectly stable slope could not have cleared 0.2. The threshold in Figure 2 is therefore reporting how much degradation signal a circuit carries at least as much as it reports stability, and the circuit-classes that clear it are partly the ones where the quantity is measurable at all.

Taking the gap between ceiling and measured score instead — the shortfall the noise does not explain — the picture is sharper than the count it replaces. Of 22 circuits, 8 have slopes that genuinely move, 3 have slopes that are stable once the noise is priced in, 7 carry no recoverable signal either way, and 4 sit between. Instability is real and it is the largest group; it is not, as the raw scores imply, nearly universal.

The degree is chosen with the held-out season in view. The folds above select the polynomial degree by averaging cross-validated RMSE over every fold, including the season then held out, which is a mild leak. Choosing the degree inside each fold instead moves the mean score by 0.0188 and at most 0.2290. The leak is real and small. It is also not free to close: at one circuit, per-fold selection takes the quadratic and extrapolates it off a cliff, which is why the published protocol chooses once. 2 circuits are excluded from the counts above as degenerate fits and named in the generated report.

5 Result 2: the cost of the stop sets the strategy regime

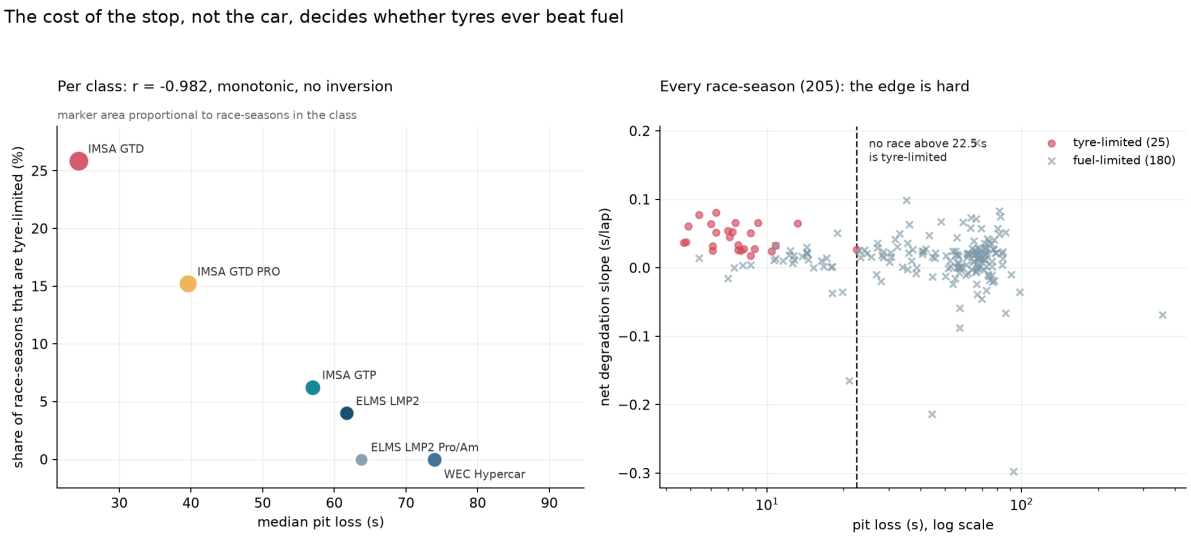


Figure 3: Left: class-level median pit loss against the share of race-seasons where the tyre-optimal plan needs more stops than the fuel minimum. Right: every race-season, with the empirical edge marked.

Figure 3 plots the rule. An exact dynamic program plans each endurance race under a hard fuel constraint and reports whether the tyre-optimal plan requires more stops than the fuel minimum. Across 205 race-seasons, 25 are tyre-limited.

The class-level correlation between median pit loss and tyre-limited share is -0.982 with a 95% interval of [-0.986, -0.745], monotonic across all classes with no inversion. That interval is bootstrapped over *races*, recomputing each class summary inside every replicate; bootstrapping the class summaries themselves would give an interval over six fixed championships, which is not a source of variation that exists.

At race level, 150 of 205 race-seasons have a pit loss above 22.5 s and 0 of them is tyre-limited, across every class.

Is this circular? The optimiser decides the regime by comparing what an extra stop costs against what the tyre gives back, so pit loss predicting the regime is pit loss predicting one side of its own criterion. The objection is fair and the answer has to be a measurement. If the stop cost were doing all the work, the degradation slope would carry no information about the regime once the stop cost is known. It carries some. Ranking the 205 race-seasons by pit loss alone orders the 25 tyre-limited against the 180 fuel-limited ones at an AUC of 0.977 (95% CI [0.955, 0.994]); by net degradation slope alone, 0.865 ([0.806, 0.915]). Both are well clear of a coin toss

and the ordering between them is not close.

This does not establish that pit loss *causes* the regime, and we do not claim it: the two are related by construction. What it establishes is that the comparison is asymmetric in practice. Knowing the cost of a stop tells you nearly the whole answer across four championships; knowing how fast the tyre wears tells you considerably less. The case that pit loss is exogenous to the race outcome is made separately, from the fact that it varies far more between circuits than between seasons of the same circuit.

Is the separation a class label, or the spread of one predictor? Two objections sit here and both have measurements rather than arguments.

The first is that pit loss simply varies more than the slope does, so an AUC comparison flatters it. It cannot. The statistic above is the Mann–Whitney form, computed from ranks, so it is invariant under any strictly increasing transformation: standardising pit loss leaves it at 0.977, unmoved to three decimals. Rescaling is not available as a correction because the objection does not reach a rank statistic.

The second is sharper. Pit loss is nearly constant inside a class, so its AUC could be measuring class identity wearing a continuous disguise — and the class-level correlation above rests on one point per class. Ranking race-seasons by their class's mean pit loss alone gives 0.760, well short of 0.977 for pit loss itself, so the label does not carry the result. Nor is pit loss mostly a class property: 92% of its variance is *within* class rather than between, which is what one would expect of a quantity set by the geometry of a pit lane rather than by a car. Recomputed inside each class, where class identity is held fixed by construction, the cost of the stop still separates the two regimes in all 4 classes where both regimes occur, between 0.963 and 1.000. The remaining 2 classes contain one regime only, so no AUC is defined for them and none is reported.

What the median pit loss is a median of. It is taken over every green-flag stop in the race-season, which in endurance racing includes stops that change driver as well as stops that do not. A driver change is slower in every class measured, so the class medians are not a measure of tyre-service time alone. The class *ordering* is unchanged whether the median is taken over all stops, only those without a driver change, or only those with one, which is what the correlation above depends on.

The condition behind it. A linear slope β over a stint of n laps accumulates $\beta n(n+1)/2$ seconds of degradation, so an extra stop repays its π seconds when that sum exceeds π. We state it because it is the readable form of the mechanism, and we do not use it: the dynamic program above is exact under the fuel cap and the stop count is read from its solution. The closed form is an approximation to that, checked against it rather than substituted for it.

The rule is robust; the constant is not. The edge sits at 22.5 s because a single race puts it there; the next tyre-limited race is at 13.2 s, a drop of 41%. We do not report a bootstrap interval for it, because the statistic is a maximum: it sits on the boundary of its own support, so the bootstrap distribution is degenerate above it and understates uncertainty below. Quote the rule; treat the number as an order of magnitude.

6 Inference

Each interval above is a percentile bootstrap resampled at the level its data varies at, and those levels differ: circuit-classes for the transfer comparison, races for the pit-loss correlation. The choice is not cosmetic. Resampling transfer folds instead of circuit-classes would treat 51 clusters as roughly four times that many independent observations, and the interval would narrow for no reason connected to the data. Figure 4 collects every result that carries one.

The audit's central finding is a median over decisions that are not independent: several drivers in one race share a track, a Safety Car and one tyre allocation, so a bootstrap over decisions would understate its width in the direction that flatters the result. The audit tables carry race identifiers, so the race is the unit resampled.

That interval changes how Result 3 (Section 7) should be read, and it is the reason this section reports it per class rather than only for the pooled median. Of the 7 class-level medians, 2 contain zero (HYPERCAR, LMP2), and the gap in those two classes is not established. Formula 1 is +10 laps with a race-clustered interval of [+8.0, +11.5] over 74 races; IMSA GTD +12 [+8.0, +14.0]; IMSA GTD PRO +13 [+9.0, +16.0]; IMSA GTP +9 [+5.0, +15.0]; WEC Hypercar +1 [+0.0, +1.0]; ELMS LMP2 +2 [-1.0, +3.0]; ELMS LMP2 Pro/Am +3 [+1.0, +4.0].

So the ladder reported in Result 3 is not a smooth gradient across the caution rate. It is a large and resolved disagreement in Formula 1 and in all three IMSA classes, against no established disagreement at all in WEC Hypercar and ELMS LMP2. The ordering still tracks the caution rate, but the low end of it is a statement about what we cannot resolve rather than

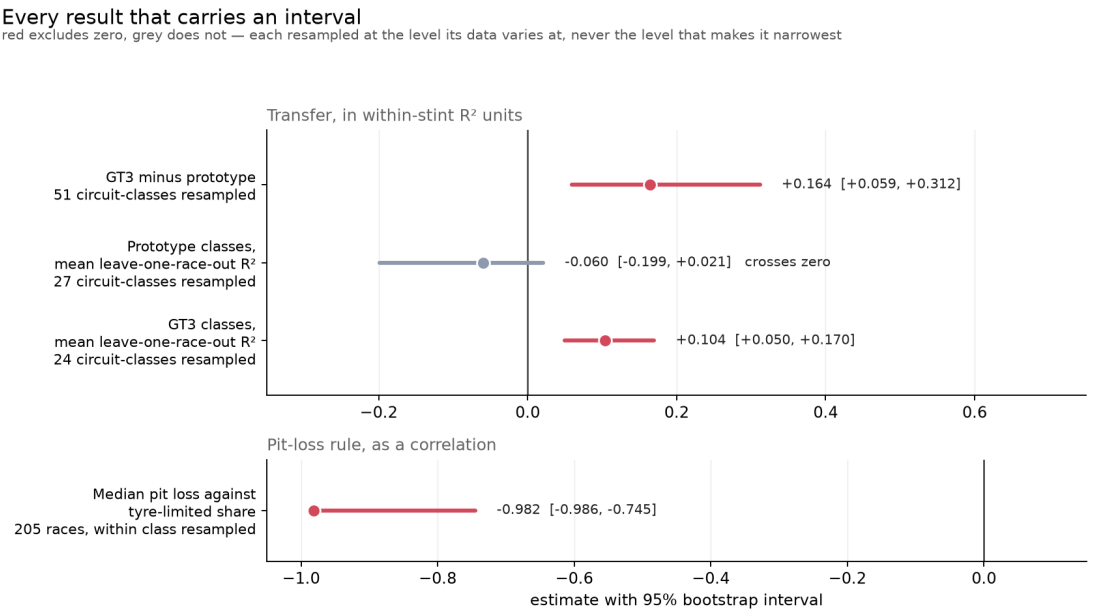


Figure 4: Every result carrying a bootstrap interval. The two panels are separate because a within-stint R^2 difference and a correlation are not measured on the same scale, and a forest plot works by letting the reader compare bar lengths. An earlier single-axis version made the correlation's long bar read as the strongest result when it is a different measurement. The cheap-stop edge is absent by design: it is a maximum, and a leave-one-out sensitivity is reported for it instead of an interval it cannot support.

about a small gap. Section 7.4 then shows that the resolved part is mostly a property of the audit rather than of the planner.

7 Result 3: most of the planner–team gap was the question the audit asked

The planner replayed here is the single-next-stop engine of Section 3.5. It chooses the lap of the next stop to minimise one car's expected race time against a linear degradation slope, a measured stop cost and a neutralisation hazard, and it runs the stint after that stop to the flag. It represents neither the tyre allocation, nor traffic, nor energy management, nor a championship position worth protecting. Every sentence below should be read as a disagreement between a model and a practice rather than as evidence about which was faster.

This section first reports the disagreement as the audit originally measured it and the four explanations that failed to account for it. It then reports the fifth, which does: the audit asked the planner to make one set of tyres last to the flag in races where the team was going to stop again (Section 7.4).

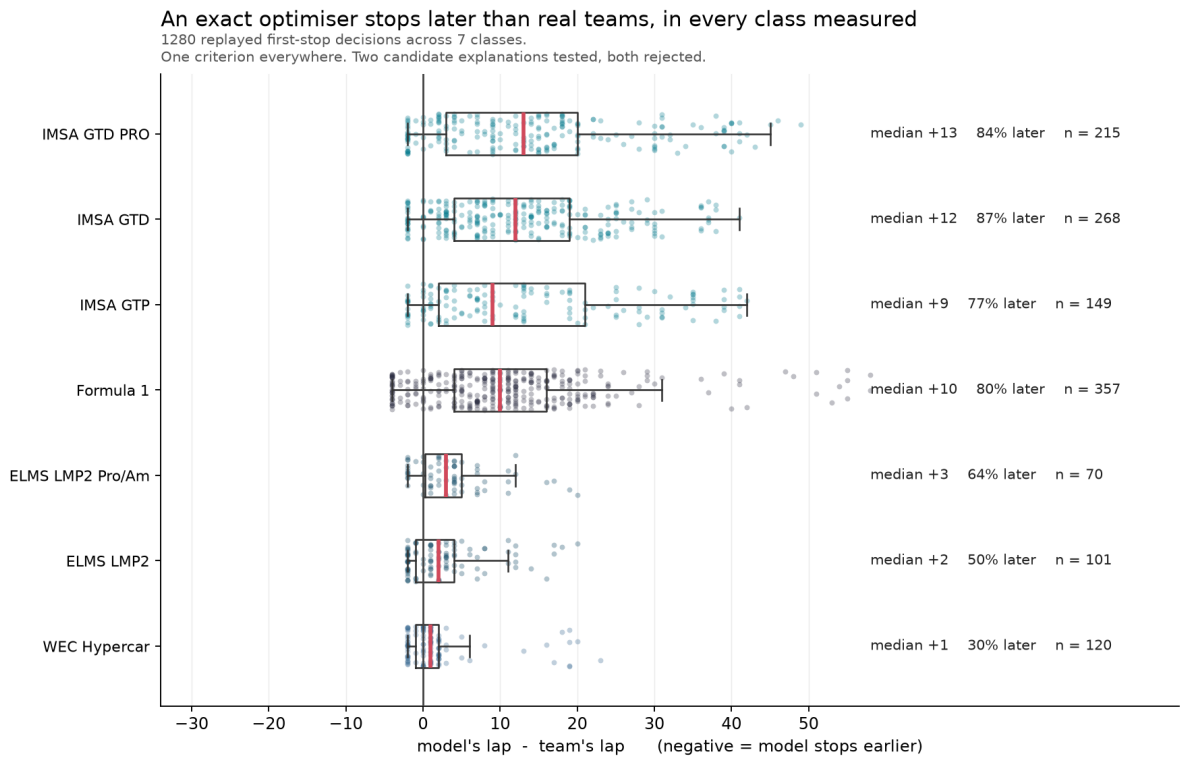


Figure 5: Model lap minus team lap, 1,280 replayed first stops. Box shows quartiles; the cloud behind it is the sample.

Figure 5 shows the whole distribution. Every real first stop with a fitted model is replayed. The model is asked five laps before the stop, given the state as it was, and its recommended lap compared to the team's. This is a replay, not a forecast: the decision point is defined relative to a stop that already happened, which is what makes the comparison possible and also what stops it being a prediction claim.

In Formula 1 the optimiser stops later on 80% of decisions, by a median of 12 laps on those; over every decision, late or not, the median is +10 laps. The endurance figures below are medians over every decision, so +10 is the comparable one. In endurance the gap tracks the caution rate: WEC +1 laps at 8% of first stops taken under caution, ELMS +2 at 20%, IMSA +12 at 53%.

Read that ladder with the race-clustered intervals in Section 6 beside it. Its two lowest rungs, WEC Hypercar and ELMS LMP2, have intervals containing zero: the ordering is real but the small gaps at the bottom of it are not established, and only the Formula 1 and IMSA disagreements are.

Figure 6 gives the neutralisation rates behind that ladder. A stop taken under caution costs a fraction of a green-flag stop, so a championship that neutralises often gives teams a reason to stop early that the optimiser, which prices the stop at its green-flag cost, does not see. That

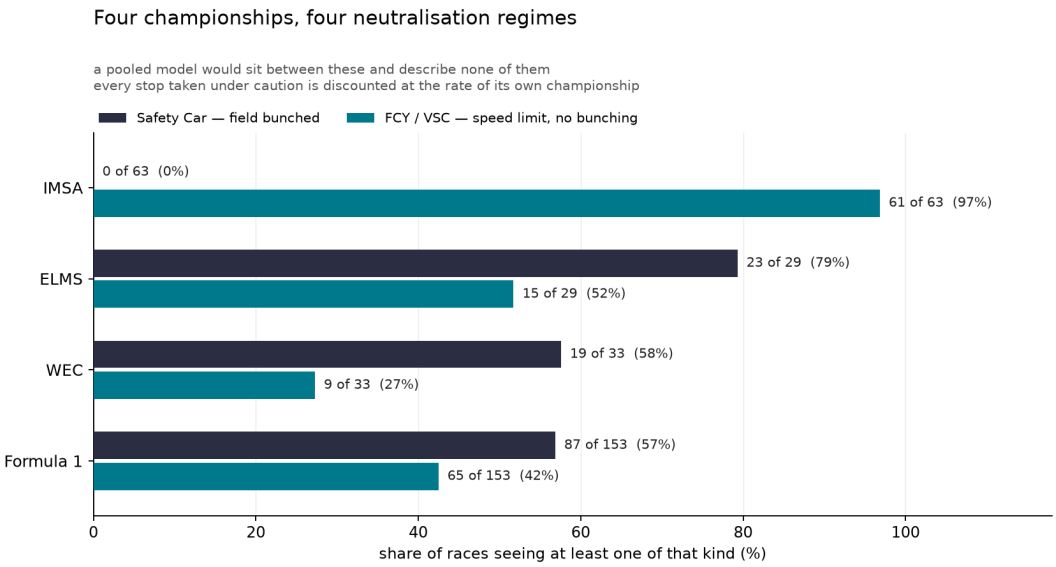


Figure 6: How often each championship neutralises a race, split by kind. A Safety Car bunches the field; a Full Course Yellow — a Virtual Safety Car in Formula 1 — imposes a field-wide speed limit without bunching it, and the two discount the cost of a stop by very different amounts. IMSA deployed no Safety Car in any scoped race and neutralises almost every race by the other route, so a figure showing only the first column would put IMSA at zero and contradict its caution share above. The unit is the race, not the car: the flag is the modal per-lap flag across the field, never one car's timing row. Classes are not separated because every class in a race shares the same neutralisation.

ordering is consistent with the gap, and it is not a test of it: three championships is three points, and we do not fit a line through them.

7.1 Testing the two candidate explanations

We proposed two mechanisms and then attacked them.

Absence of track position. The engine optimises one car's expected race time and cannot pay for an undercut, which is exactly why a team stops before it has to. Re-running all 357 Formula 1 decisions through a cover-aware Stackelberg engine consuming each circuit's measured overtaking difficulty moves the recommendation *away* from the real stop, not toward it. **Rejected.**

Across the calendar the cover-aware recommendation lands a median of -1 lap further from the real stop than the single-car one, and only 18% of decisions improve at all.

Two separate things follow and they should not be read together. The first is about the hypothesis: modelling the cover does not move the recommendation toward what teams did, so an unmodelled undercut does not account for the gap. That holds under every rival-selection rule in Section 8, including the one that fits the engine best. The second is about the test rather

than the hypothesis: part of the *further* in that sentence was an artefact of how the rival was chosen. Under the published selection the cover-aware model is a median -1 lap worse than the single-car one, which reads as an engine that damages its own input; under the standalone-time selection it is level at +0 and improves 99 decisions against 63. The hypothesis dies either way. It dies cleanly under the better selection, and the earlier appearance of a model actively making things worse was in part a measurement defect we have since fixed.

Two qualifications stand between the first of those and a clean refutation.

The first is that the covariate is thinner than its headline suggests. Figure 7 shows a 14-fold range across 25 circuits, which sounds decisive and is carried by its two ends. Monaco sits at 0.0047 swaps per lap, a factor of 4.1 below the next circuit, with a spread across its 4 races of only 0.0016 — the one entry that is genuinely separated. The top of the range rests on 3 races at a circuit first run in 2023 and is the noisiest row in the table. In between, the standard deviation across circuits (0.0104) is about the same as the median standard deviation across races within a circuit (0.0103), so the twenty circuits in the middle are not separable from one another on this measure.

The second is that the mechanism is not uniformly wrong. At Monaco, where overtaking is hardest and the covariate resolves cleanly, the cover-aware engine does move toward the real stop, by a median of +0.5 laps over 8 decisions, and the rank correlation between swap rate and improvement is -0.16 across the calendar. Both point the way the mechanism predicts. Neither is remotely large enough: half a lap against a median discrepancy of +10 laps is the right sign at the wrong order of magnitude. Track position is doing something. It is not doing this.

Slopes biased toward durability. A tyre that looks flatter than it is makes staying out look cheaper. Measured against an independent source that separates tyre wear from fuel burn by a different method on different data, the median paired difference is negligible — an error of that size moves a stop by several race distances, not by ten laps. **Not detected.** We note that comparing the two *medians* instead of the median of paired differences produces a small apparent bias that is an artefact of comparing summaries rather than pairs; an earlier version of this work nearly reported it.

7.2 A third explanation, from published work

The two explanations tested above were ours. A third comes from Salminen [2026], who solves the two-car one-stop problem as a perfect-information sequential game and derives the earliest

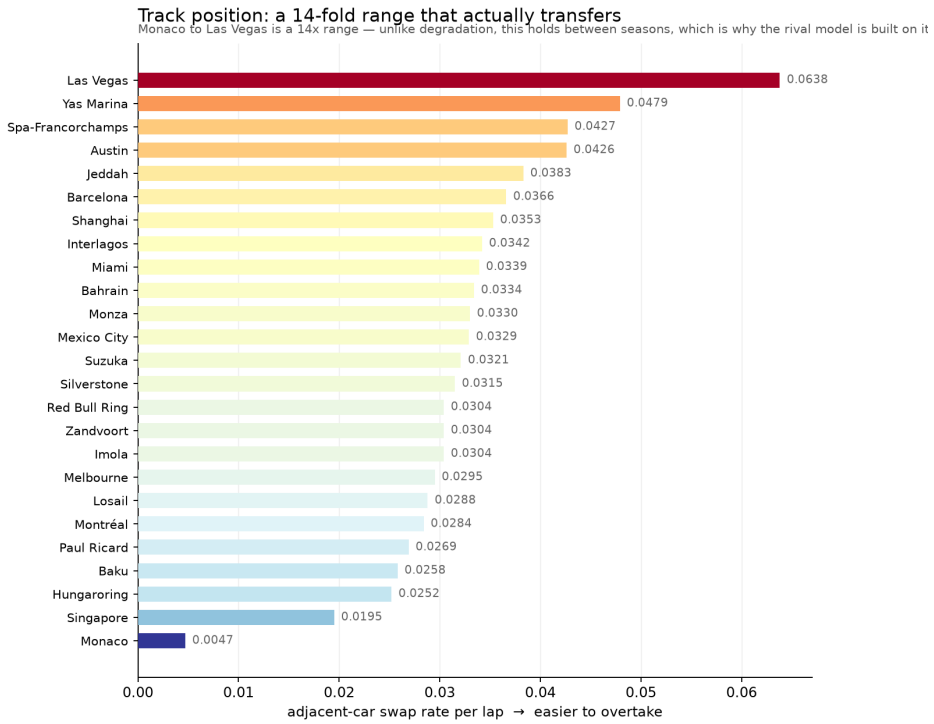


Figure 7: Adjacent-car swap rate per lap, by circuit. This is the primitive the cover-aware engine consumes, shown so that the rejection above can be read against the spread of the input, and not assumed to come from a flat one.

lap on which an undercut cannot be answered. It is the only mechanism we have found that predicts stopping *before* the time-optimal lap, which is the direction of the disagreement reported here: a chaser stops when the leader's answer expires, and waiting for the time optimum hands the leader a window.

The leader has two answers in that model. The overcut needs a tyre advantage of $(o+\varepsilon)/\theta$ laps, where o is an overtaking threshold in seconds. We hold no such quantity — what this project measures per circuit is an adjacent-pair swap probability per lap, a different object that does not convert into one — so we implement only the position-keeping defence, which is efficient while $\theta l_u + \varepsilon < g$ and therefore expires at a tyre age of $(g-\varepsilon)/\theta$. Where the overcut is unavailable, the earliest undefendable undercut is the lap after that. We set $\varepsilon = 0$ throughout: estimating it would mean reading a chaser's pace while it sits in dirty air, which inflates it, and a larger ε expires the defence earlier and so moves the prediction toward the real stop.

It fails, and by how much. Across the 254 decisions carrying a prediction, the earliest undefendable undercut lands a median of +55 laps from the real stop, against +9 for the single-car optimiser on the same decisions. It is closer on 41 and further on 207. Fed with the gaps and

slopes measured here, the condition says a Formula 1 leader can defend an undercut for longer than the race lasts, so a chaser should never undercut at all.

The failure has a number rather than a story behind it. Setting l_u to the tyre age of the stop a team actually made gives the degradation rate at which the defence would have expired exactly then, $\theta^* = (g - \varepsilon)/l_u$. Its median is 0.185 s/lap against a measured 0.045, a ratio of 3.4 with quartiles 1.4 to 8.6, and θ^* exceeds the measured rate on 79% of decisions. A rate of 0.185 s/lap sits at the 99th percentile of every slope fitted in this work. The gap is therefore not a matter of calibration: for the equilibrium to reproduce what teams do, tyres would have to degrade at a rate this data almost never shows.

A reading we have not established. θl_u prices the defender's loss over a single lap on a tyre l_u laps old. At a measured 0.045 s/lap and a tyre the age teams stop at, that is under a second, which the median 3.4 s lead covers easily. What wins a real undercut is the advantage of a tyre on its first flying lap over one at the end of its life, and a linear slope has no term for that. Measuring it directly is a different estimator and we have not attempted it. We state this as a hypothesis because that is what it is.

What holds whatever the verdict. Of the 357 decisions, 91 belong to a car with nobody ahead of it on the clock within one lap. The race leader has no undercut to perform, so roughly a quarter of the audited set carries no prediction under any two-car model, which bounds what this family of explanations could ever account for. For the remaining 266, the gap to the leader is a median 3.4 s, and on 260 of 266 it is smaller than the circuit's measured pit loss. Whether the position is reachable by stopping first is therefore not the binding constraint, which is the opposite of what we expected to find.

Defects found while building this. All three inflated the defence's window, so all three made this negative result look stronger than it is, and we report them for that reason. Comparing cumulative race time with no bound found rivals a full lap away; the nearest car ahead is now capped at one green lap and the widest retained gap is 36 s. The expiry is a tyre age and was being compared against a lap number, which agree on only 78% of these decisions. And the breadth layer's pit-loss table names circuits differently from the lap files, which still drops 85 of 266 values if joined on the slug. Each now has a test, as does the conclusion itself: a negative result decays when someone later makes it come out positive.

7.3 A fourth explanation, and the sign it comes back with

The most natural candidate explanation is structural rather than empirical. A linear slope has no one-off gain at a stop, so an optimiser built on it should always recommend stopping later than a pit wall buying an immediate jump in pace, and pricing that jump in should close the gap.

The shape a fit misses is visible in its own residuals, so the claim needs no new machinery. A fit forces its residuals to average zero overall; what carries the answer is the profile against tyre age, where negative means laps faster than the model says. Pooled over 24 Formula 1 circuits, the youngest measured age carries +0.187 s and the next +0.059 s — laps on a new set come in *slower* than the fit expects, and the sign only turns over once the set is several laps old. Per circuit, fresh laps are faster than modelled at 7 of 24, median -0.048 s. The out-lap is already outside the modelling frame, so this is the first flying laps on the new set, which is what a stop buys.

That is tyre warm-up, and it is the opposite of the effect the objection predicts. The engine prices a stop as an instant return to the slope's intercept, so it is already *over*stating what a stop is worth; correcting it would push the recommended lap later still and widen the disagreement rather than close it. Four candidate explanations have now been tested here and all four have failed, three of them in the direction that makes the gap larger.

7.4 A fifth explanation: the question the audit asked

The four explanations above all look for something the planner misprices. The fifth is in the audit. The engine plans one stop and runs the stint after it to the flag, so for a car that stopped once it was answering the question the pit wall answered. For a car that stopped again, it was not: the team's second stint ended at its second stop, and an engine made to stretch one set of tyres to the end will place the first stop later for that reason alone.

The published gap splits accordingly. Over the 150 Formula 1 decisions by drivers who stopped once, the median is +4 laps [+2.0, +7.0]; over the 202 by drivers who stopped again it is +12 [+11.0, +14.0], and +17 for three or more stops. Inside the 19 races containing both kinds of decision the multi-stop median exceeds the one-stop median by +5 laps, so the split is not only a difference between circuits.

We then replayed every decision whose driver stopped again with the race ending, for the engine, at that driver's real second stop. Everything after that stop runs on fresh tyres whichever

first-stop lap is chosen, so it is common to every candidate and drops out: the optimum over the shortened horizon is exactly the optimum given the team's own second stop. Nothing else changes; replayed with the full horizon, the same code reproduces every published recommendation in a random sample of forty. Leaving out the 5 decisions whose real stop falls outside the shortened window, and with the team's strategy held fixed, the Formula 1 median falls from +9.5 to +2 laps [+1.0, +4.0], and among multi-stop decisions from +12 to +1 [+1.0, +2.0]. In endurance the same replay, with each stint also bounded by the fuel range, covers 784 decisions, and the interval contains zero in all 6 classes: IMSA GTD falls from +11 to +1 [+0.0, +2.0], IMSA GTD PRO from +13 to +1 [+0.0, +5.0], and IMSA GTP from +8 to 0 [-2.0, +2.0].

Two objections have to be met before that is read as agreement. The first is hindsight: a second stop taken under a Safety Car was not planned at the decision lap. Keeping only the 155 decisions whose second stop was under green leaves the Formula 1 median at +2 [+1.0, +2.0]. The second is that fixing the second stop shrinks the set of laps the engine can pick from, and a narrow enough window makes agreement automatic. In Formula 1 it does not: the window is a median of 24 laps, inside which a lap drawn uniformly would miss the real stop by a median of 8.3 and the window's midpoint by 7.5, against 3 for the engine. In endurance the engine beats both chance baselines in only 3 of 6 classes, the three IMSA ones (GTD: window 12, engine 2, uniform 4.5, midpoint 4.0). In WEC Hypercar and both ELMS classes the fuel range leaves a window of 4 to 7 laps, the engine does no better than chance, and the replay is uninformative there — which is consistent with those being the classes where the published gap was never established.

What survives is the one-stop residual. Where the engine and the team were answering the same question, the engine still stops +4 laps later [+2.0, +7.0]. That is the part of Result 3 the audit design does not explain.

7.5 Comparison against three baselines

Three rules were scored on 1,263 of the same decisions, from the same artifacts, on the same metric (Figure 8 and Table 2). B1 divides the race into equal stints and uses no fitted quantity at all. B2 stops once the tyre's accumulated loss exceeds the pit loss, using the fitted slope and the measured pit loss and nothing else. B3 runs the fuel load out, and is undefined in Formula 1, where refuelling has been prohibited since 2010 — we report it as undefined rather than substituting the race end.

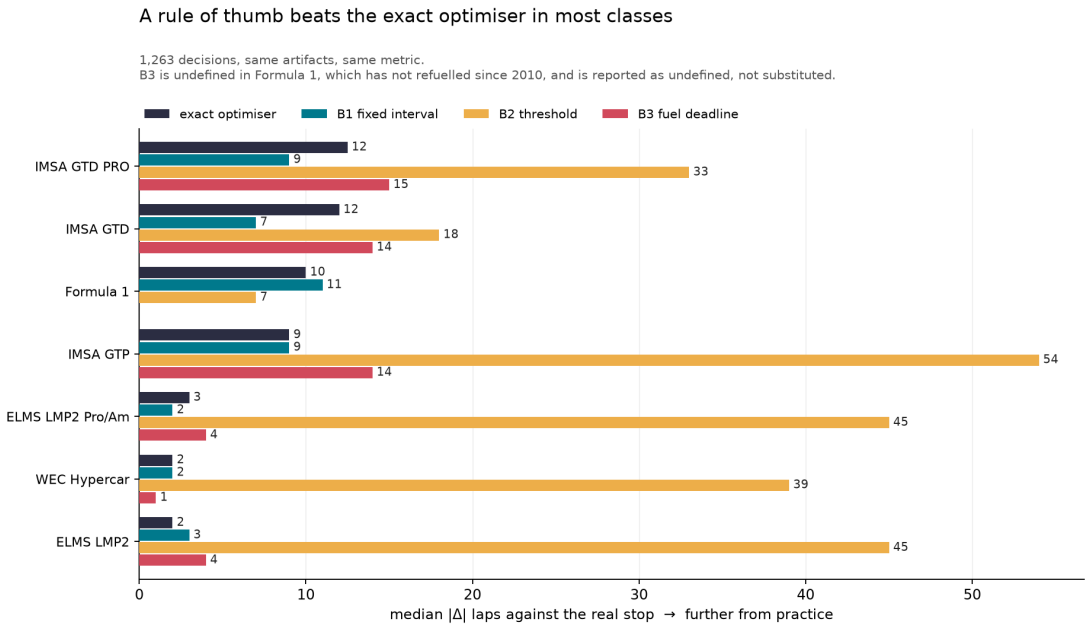


Figure 8: Median absolute lap error against the real stop, one row per class rather than per championship. IMSA's three classes run the same rounds under pit losses of 57, 24 and 40 seconds, so B3 — run the tank out — means a different thing in each and one IMSA row would describe none of them.

Results are reported per class rather than per championship. IMSA runs GTP, GTD and GTD PRO at the same rounds with median pit losses of 57, 24 and 40 seconds, so a single IMSA row averages three strategy regimes into a number describing none of them. That grouping also concealed a difference worth seeing: GTP, the IMSA class with the dearest stops, has the smallest disagreement of the three.

Table 2: Median absolute lap error against the real stop, per class. Lower is closer to what teams did. B3 is undefined in Formula 1, which has not refuelled since 2010.

	Optimiser	B1 interval	B2 threshold	B3 fuel
Formula 1	10	11	**7**	–
IMSA GTP	9	9	54	14
IMSA GTD	12	**7**	18	14
IMSA GTD PRO	12	**9**	33	15
WEC Hypercar	2	2	39	**1**
ELMS LMP2	**2**	3	45	4
ELMS LMP2 Pro/Am	3	**2**	45	4

A rule of thumb sits closer to practice than the exact optimiser in 5 of 7 classes, ties it in 1 and loses in 1. In 3 of those classes the winning rule is B1, which uses no fitted quantity whatsoever — only the race length and the number of stops the tank forces. In the two it does not win, it ties the optimiser rather than losing to it.

Two things this does not establish. *Closer to what teams did* is not *better*: every number here scores agreement with practice, never which plan was faster. And it does not rescue the finding; it removes one more explanation for it, since the gap cannot come from the simpler methods lacking information the optimiser has. They have less, and land nearer.

8 Result 4: which car counts as the rival is under-determined

The replay above pairs each audited car with its nearest neighbour on classified position, which Thraves objected chooses the car ahead on some decisions and the car behind on others while the decision order is fixed, and which leaves 271 of 357 decisions as ties between an equidistant neighbour in front and one behind. He proposed a criterion in its place: estimate for each car the total race time it would set under its own optimal strategy in the absence of competition, and take as rival the car whose estimated time is closest.

We implement it with the same exact dynamic program the audit already uses, scoring each car from its own median green lap, the circuit-compound degradation posterior for the tyre it is running, and the circuit's measured pit loss. The compound term matters for the reason he gave: two cars at identical raw pace reach their optima on different laps if one is on a faster-wearing tyre. Formula 1 has not refuelled since 2010, so the fuel cap is the race distance and never binds, and what the program trades off is degradation against stop cost. The median gap in estimated standalone race time between an audited car and the rival this picks is 4.0 s over a full race.

Table 3 runs 4 rules against the same decisions.

Table 3: Rival-selection rules on the same Formula 1 decisions. Errors are signed in laps, positive meaning later than the team stopped. *Closed* is the single-car absolute error minus the cover-aware one, so a positive value would mean modelling the rival moved the recommendation toward the team's choice. The position-ahead rule scores fewer decisions because a race leader has no car ahead of it.

rule	scored	cover-aware	closed (median)	closed (mean)	improved
nearest on position	357	+11	-1	-0.96	63
within one pit loss	357	+11	-1	-1.06	55
car ahead on the clock	271	+11	-1	-0.75	56
nearest standalone time	357	+10	+0	-0.01	99

Two things come out of it and they point opposite ways.

The choice of rival is consequential. His rule and the published one name the same car on 20% of decisions, and all 4 rules agree on 17 of the 271 decisions where all of them apply. Four

defensible readings of the word "rival" disagree about which car to model four times out of five.

It does not move Result 3. The cover-aware recommendation stays later than the real stop under every rule, by a median of +10 laps at best against 12 for the single-car model it is meant to improve on. What his rule does change is the penalty: under the published selection the cover-aware model sits a median -1 lap further from the real stop than the single-car one, and under his it is level at +0, improving 99 decisions against 63. The defect he identified is therefore real, and correcting it does not produce the agreement the adversarial model was built to find.

He also named the limit of his own proposal, and we state it as he put it: at the extreme the choice of rival becomes endogenous, since each car's strategy depends on the others. The standalone time this heuristic sorts on is computed with no competition in it, which is what makes it computable and equally what makes it an approximation. We do not resolve this. A selection rule that accounted for the interaction would have to solve the joint problem the selection is a step toward, and nothing here does that.

A second approximation is ours rather than his. The standalone time is the whole race from the start rather than the remaining race from the decision lap, so it pairs cars by capability instead of by where they have got to. His formulation is the former and it is what we implement; the latter would answer a different question.

What this does and does not claim. How far four rules disagree depends on how different they are, and four near-restatements of one criterion would of course agree. The obvious objection is therefore that the rules were chosen to diverge. They were not, and the provenance of two of them is what answers it.

The car-ahead rule is not a reading we selected. It is the pairing Salminen [2026] defines his defences on: his leader and chaser are whichever two cars are adjacent on the clock, so testing his model at all forces that rule and no other. The standalone-time rule was proposed to us by Charles Thraves, in correspondence, as a criterion he thought the audit should use instead of ours; he is an author of the Stackelberg treatment (Aguad and Thraves, 2024; Carrasco Heine and Thraves, 2022) whose framing this project's adversarial component reuses. Neither rule was constructed here, neither was constructed against the other, and neither was introduced because it disagreed — the disagreement is what came back.

The disagreement is also bounded. No decision produces four distinct cars, and 148 of 271 produce exactly two. The claim is that a rival is not determined by the timing data together

with a defensible criterion, which is weaker than saying it is undefined and strong enough to matter for any model that assumes one.

The game-theoretic branch of this literature is built on a two-car abstraction. Aguad and Thraves [2024] solve a Stackelberg game between two drivers, de Vries et al. [2026] pose a two-agent problem per lap, and Salminen [2026] derives his equilibrium for a leader and a chaser. Each is internally consistent and none of them has occasion to say which two cars those are in a real race, because the question does not arise inside the abstraction. Measured against real decisions, the identification is the part that gives way.

9 Threats to validity

Estimators built here and withdrawn. A piecewise race-time basis intended to absorb track evolution was validated on synthetic races and then withdrawn twice on real ones: real fields sit close to the degenerate boundary where tyre age and race time share most of their variance after fixed effects. Formula 1's median identifiability is 0.691, well outside the range the basis was shown to work in. We report the omitted variable as diagnosed and unfixed rather than applying a correction that fails silently.

Result 1 bounds reuse, not refitting. Giona Fieni (ETH Zürich) stated the scope limit on this result more sharply than we had. A primarily model-based policy treats fitted degradation curves as placeholders and retunes them for each car and circuit, so it never depends on a slope transferring to a season it has not seen. Result 1 measures the stability of reused data-driven parameters. That bounds approaches which carry fitted parameters forward, and says nothing against a design that refits as a matter of course; on that design's own terms it is an argument for refitting.

The concession stops there. If measured behaviour were stable once the physics is fixed, the near-specification control field should have been the one that transferred: one chassis, one engine, no Balance of Performance, a single tyre supplier. It fails as the performance-balanced fields do. So either lap time carries large effects that are not the tyre, or the retuning step is doing more than retuning. We read it as the first, and the track evolution withdrawn above is our candidate for part of what it is.

The audit was not a fair comparison, and most of Result 3 was that. The engine plans one stop and runs to the flag; a pit wall chooses a lap inside a strategy it has already committed to. Section 7.4 holds the team's next stop fixed and most of the gap disappears. Three limits remain. Holding the second stop fixed gives the engine the team's plan in hindsight; restricting to green-flag second stops answers the part of that objection that concerns opportunistic stops, not the part that concerns a plan revised during the race. The engine still represents neither the tyre allocation nor traffic, so the one-stop residual of +4 laps may yet be either. And in WEC Hypercar and ELMS the replay cannot discriminate, because the fuel range leaves the engine too few laps to choose from.

Unresolved slopes, carried forward anyway. Of the 73 Formula 1 degradation coefficients, 16 have a cluster-robust interval containing zero, and 75% of compound pairs within a circuit have intervals that overlap each other. Every one of them is carried forward regardless. Screening on the resolved ones would select on the dependent variable — circuit-classes with tight slopes are exactly the ones likeliest to transfer — and the transfer result would then be partly an artefact of the screen. The cost is that the weak transfer reported in Section 4 is a mixture of genuine instability and of parameters the data never pinned down. Section 4.1 separates those two for Formula 1 by measuring what a stable slope could have scored against the same noise, and the mixture turns out to matter: most circuits cannot clear the quoted threshold even with a slope that does not move. The endurance classes are not separated this way, and their counts should be read with that in mind.

Constants resting on very little. The cheap-stop edge of 22.5 s is a maximum set by one race; drop it and the edge falls to 13.2 s, 41%. The second-best transfer score, +0.497 at Lime Rock GTD PRO, is a mean over 2 folds running from +0.357 to +0.638 — a spread of 0.281, wider than most circuit-classes' entire score, and it should not be read beside Lime Rock GTD's +0.573, which averages 3 folds spanning 0.024. Same circuit, same protocol, an order of magnitude more stable. The instability is therefore not a property of the circuit alone. And the top of the track-position range rests on 3 races at a circuit first run in 2023. The rules these support are not thin — 150 race-seasons sit above the edge with 0 tyre-limited among them — but the constants are, and they are quoted here as orders of magnitude. A full accounting is generated into `reports/cross_series/thin_evidence.md`.

Compound is unavailable in endurance. The endurance degradation models are net-slope models. Comparisons between the Formula 1 per-compound coefficients and endurance net slopes are made only where the quantity is genuinely comparable.

Neutralisation regimes are not poolable. IMSA records no Safety Car in any scoped race and a Full Course Yellow in nearly all of them; WEC and ELMS are Safety-Car championships at very different rates. Any pooled endurance neutralisation model would sit between these and describe none of them, so they are never merged.

Some layers cannot be rebuilt from a clone. The breadth-degradation and reliability layers read a third-party export that is not redistributed here. Their outputs are committed, so every downstream consumer and every test runs offline; what is blocked is rebuilding them from source. Section 10 names them, and names the one whose blockage reaches a published result.

10 Reproducibility

Every artifact derived from committed data is regenerated by continuous integration, which fails on any difference between the working tree and the repository. That includes files a generator wrote and nobody committed, a blind spot which produced three weeks of silent drift before it was closed.

The state these results were computed from is archived on Zenodo and, through it, in Software Heritage and OpenAIRE. The concept identifier `https://doi.org/10.5281/zenodo.22726130` resolves to the newest version of the deposit. The release archived alongside this paper carries its own frozen identifier, recorded in the repository's `CITATION.cff`, for anyone who needs the exact state a figure came from rather than the current one.

The blocked layers, named. 3 layers read third-party exports this repository does not redistribute, so those layers cannot be regenerated from a clone: the Formula 1 breadth layer and the Formula 1 and WEC reliability tables. Their outputs are committed, so everything downstream of them runs offline, and the rest of the project — Formula 1 core, WEC, IMSA, ELMS, the simulator, the audits and every cross-series layer — reproduces from a clone with no external download.

One of the three is load-bearing. The cross-source slope check that rejected one of the

candidate explanations for the gap in Result 3 rests on the breadth layer, whose input a reader cannot obtain from this repository. Reproducing that rejection requires the external source, which is named in the repository along with what each blocked layer reads and writes.

Every number in this manuscript is a macro generated by `scripts/make_paper_numbers.py` from the committed artifacts; the source of this paper contains no digits. A separate test recomputes each published headline from its artifact and asserts the formatted result appears in the document that publishes it, which is stricter than recomputing alone.

11 Conclusion

What this paper offers is a protocol and what came back from it. Degradation slopes rarely transfer, and where they do it is a property of the circuit-class rather than of the championship or the machinery. Whether an extra stop can ever pay is decided by the cost of the stop, which separates the two regimes at an AUC of 0.977 against 0.865 for the tyre. And a time-optimal planner appeared to disagree with professional practice by a median of +10 laps in Formula 1. We proposed two explanations, tested both and lost both; we took a third from published work, which has the right sign and fails on the quantity it depends on by a factor of 3.4; a fourth comes back with the wrong sign (Section 7.3). The fifth was the audit: asked to plan the stint the team would actually run, the planner lands +2 laps from the real stop rather than +9.5, and no endurance class keeps an established gap (Section 7.4). Simpler rules landed closer to practice in 5 of 7 classes; the fixed-interval rule among them is given the number of stops the team made, which the audited engine was not.

What remains is a gap of +4 laps in one-stop races, where the planner and the team were answering the same question. It is smaller than the one this paper set out to explain, and it is the one we would most like someone else to explain.

Data and code availability

Every quantity in this paper is derived from committed artifacts by scripts in a public repository, which also contains the data, the figures and the tests: `https://github.com/mohammedmedjadj/Motorsport-Strategy-Lab`. The state the results were computed from is archived and citable at `https://doi.org/10.5281/zenodo.22726130`.

Acknowledgements

Several researchers replied to cold emails about this work. Three of those replies changed what the repository contains, and what they changed is set out here rather than thanked in general terms.

Charles Thraves (Universidad de Chile) identified the rival-selection defect in the adversarial replay: minimising absolute classified-position distance picks the car ahead on some decisions and the car behind on others, and with equidistant neighbours the choice is incidental. He then proposed the standalone-optimal-time heuristic tested in Section 8, confirmed that compound and tyre-age differences in lap time are enough to move the relative timing, and named the endogeneity that bounds his own proposal.

Wytze de Vries (TU Eindhoven) raised two measurement objections to Result 2: that a class-level median pit loss pools two-tyre stops with full service including a driver change, and that part of the correlation may run backwards, since tyre-limited races carry less fuel and so stop faster. Both were tested; the first holds and does not disturb the class ordering, and the second has the sign he predicted at a magnitude too small to account for the result.

Jorn van Kampen (TU Eindhoven) described the same structure from electric endurance racing, where the charging stop is long enough that a tyre change is treated as negligible and is not optimised separately.

Giona Fieni (ETH Zürich) drew the line between a result about reused data-driven parameters and a result about model-based policy, which is the scope limit now stated in Section 9; and held that once the physics is known the behaviour follows, which is the position the near-specification control field is set against there.

None of them is responsible for what this manuscript says.

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